

Maternal Employment and Socioeconomic Status as Factors in Daughters' Career Salience: Some Substantive Refinements¹

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Research on children of working mothers has indicated that an important relationship exists between maternal employment and subsequent career salience of female offspring. Effects caused by socioeconomic factors have been noted in this relationship but have not been examined either systematically or over time. In the present study, socioeconomic differences were controlled for examination of longitudinal data on established critical factors in career salience of female college graduates. Multiple regression models were estimated for three points in time, covering an eight-year period, for subsamples of single and married women. Details about mother's employment history, respondent's recollection of the attitudes of family members concerning that employment, and indicators of daughter's sex-role ideology were independent variables. Maternal employment was significantly related to both single and married daughters' career salience but in opposite directions and accounted for only a minimum of the observed variance. Related maternal employment variables are associated with career salience of single women early in their postbaccalaureate careers and are not associated with the career salience of married women until somewhat later. Sex-role ideology was important for the career salience of married women but not for single women. The importance of a generalizable context for these findings is discussed.

Census statistics reveal substantial work-rate increases within the past decade among married women of all ages. This phenomenon is most notable among

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younger married women. Between 1960 and 1969 a dramatic 82% increase occurred among married women aged 20 to 24 whose husbands are present and who have preschool children (U.S. Bureau of Labor Statistics, 1961, p. A-13; 197, p. A-15).

The effect of mothers' work involvements on children's emotional, social, and intellectual development has long been an important concern for researchers, since most professionals and lay people have believed that maternal employment has negative effects on offspring (for reviews, see Etaugh, 1974; Siegel & Haas, 1963; Stolz, 1960). Despite the prominence of studies that have disproven global negative effects of maternal employment on the development of children (Hoffman, 1963, 1974), research into the benefits from mother working remains inconclusive because inadequately designed studies have generated contradictory or incompletely specified relationships. Too often the conceptual leap made about the impact of maternal employment on children's behavior is presumptuous (Hoffman, 1974). One relationship in need of further systematic analysis is the apparent transfer of career salience of previously or currently employed mothers to their daughters.

Child development research has revealed an important association between maternal employment and the acceptance of a wide range of sex-appropriate behaviors among female offspring of working mothers (Douvan, 1963; Douvan & Adelson, 1966; Hartley, 1960, 1961). Hoffman (1974) concluded that the effect that a mother's work experience has on her daughter is to introduce a more liberal sex-role ideology to her daughter. This in turn results in positive self-esteem for the daughter, which predisposes her to career achievement; but evidence to support the interaction of sex-role ideology with self-esteem remains sketchy (Miller, 1975). Nonetheless, working mothers clearly expose their daughters to a variety of role behaviors that apparently enhance the life options from which the children can choose. Presumably, exposure to a wide range of life options as a child translates into definition of, and selection from, a less constrained range of adult roles.

Research conducted on college women indicates that they perceive a direct relationship between maternal employment and career salience. Female undergraduates partially attributed their work aspirations to their mothers' work involvements (Almquist & Angrist, 1971; Tangri, 1972). Positive maternal employment effects have been reported among professional women who had completed the baccalaureate and who were enrolled in, or had completed, graduate school (Ginzberg, 1971; Astin, 1969, respectively). However, Baruch (1972) found that a mother's working *per se* did not foster a more flexible sex-role ideology in her daughter, but that maternal employment in combination with a mother's successful (i.e., positive) combination of work and family roles did. Baruch's sample was limited, however, to women enrolled in a small private women's liberal arts college which drew students primarily from upper social strata. Tangri's study (1972) of college seniors who were also from economically privileged families revealed positive, albeit weak, relationships between

mother's then current involvement with an atypical occupation and daughter's majoring in an atypical study field.

The career salience of adult college-educated women is quite probably a direct manifestation of flexible sex-role ideology. That such career salience is positively associated with whether a woman's mother had worked has proven to be critical information. However, longitudinal data on female college undergraduates past the baccalaureate and controls for socioeconomic status, an important factor frequently overlooked, are essential to the analysis. Socioeconomic differences have been reported in women's motivations to attend college. For example, women of low socioeconomic background are more likely to use college to achieve upward social mobility through marriage (Funk, Note 1). Thus, studies conducted on undergraduates alone may misconstrue college attendance for career salience. Furthermore, existing studies on female undergraduates have not used representative samples of college women. Hence, systematic differences due to socioeconomic status may prevail in reported career salience of college women.

Expanding previous research relating maternal employment to daughter's career activity, this report systematically examines the longitudinal evidence of variables pertinent to transference of mother's work involvement to daughter's career salience.

From a national probability sample of female college graduates, evidence on mother's employment history, respondent's recollections of selected family members' attitudes concerning that employment, socioeconomic status of the family, and daughter's educational and occupational attainments and indicators of sex-role ideology are examined. The following questions were investigated longitudinally with multivariate regression analysis. Controlling for socioeconomic status (mother's and father's educational and occupational attainments), what variation in six dependent variables indicating career salience — whether college-educated daughter was employed full time at two assessments six years apart; her stated career commitment at two assessments six years apart; her participation in atypical career fields at two assessments seven years apart — is significantly accounted for by whether mother worked; if she worked, how old respondent was when mother worked; mother's job type; mother's attitude toward her work; father's attitude toward mother's work; daughter's reaction as a child and as an adult to mother's work; and daughter's sex-role ideology.

METHOD

Sample

These data were collected as part of a larger study conducted by the National Opinion Research Center (NORC) on a representative sample of the June 1961 college graduating class. Through self-administered questionnaires, the

future plans of college seniors were assessed (Wave A) and then followed up for three years (Waves B, C, and D). A fifth assessment (Wave E), conducted in 1968, was designed to study the attitudes of individuals seven years past college graduation. Potential for a cohort effect existed since these data were collected before sex discrimination had been made illegal. However, these data are characteristic of the career options typically available to women in society until very recently, and consequences of sex discrimination are likely to prevail for some time.

All White females less than 30 years of age responding to the Wave E questionnaire comprised the sample for the analyses presented here ($N = 1,612$).³ Because the Wave E sample was drawn from a subsample of respondents included in all previous waves, the possibility of sample response bias as a result of attrition was investigated through differences in selected demographic characteristics of the respondents between Waves A and E (Bielby, Note 2). Appreciable differences were not detected except that White Protestant respondents tended to remain in the longitudinal sample disproportionately, as did those who had a record of success in their college careers.

Models

To assess the relationship of maternal employment and related factors on the longitudinal career salience of their college-educated daughters, multiple regression models for two subsamples were specified, single (never-married) and married (ever-married) women, each at three points in time: as college seniors (Wave A), one year past the baccalaureate (Wave B), and seven years past the baccalaureate (Wave E).⁴

Variables

Means and standard deviations of the variables are presented in Tables I and II. Independent variables were scaled and coded in the following manner. The socioeconomic indicators of respondent's (daughter's) family of origin head

³ The non-White females were eliminated from the sample, since their small numbers precluded separate analyses by racial groups. The likelihood that the career processes of non-Whites were substantially different from those of White women (Turner, 1972) made it inadvisable to conduct analyses aggregated across racial groups.

Also eliminated from the sample were older female college graduates (greater than 30 years of age). These women are likely to be experiencing different career processes, since most are past their childbearing years. Missing data on women in the sample were treated with the "pairwise deletion of missing data" technique. A missing value for a particular variable causes that case to be eliminated from calculation involving that variable only.

⁴ Previous research (Bielby, Note 2) revealed distinct longitudinal career involvement processes for these subsamples. Insignificant numbers of women were widowed, divorced, or separated at these times and did not warrant separate analyses.

Table I. Subsample Means and Standard Deviations of Variables for Ever-Married Women

Variable	Wave A				Wave B				Wave E			
	All ever-married women		Ever-married women whose mothers worked		All ever-married women		Ever-married women whose mothers worked		All ever-married women		Ever-married women whose mothers worked	
	$\bar{X}$	<i>SD</i>	$\bar{X}$	<i>SD</i>	$\bar{X}$	<i>SD</i>	$\bar{X}$	<i>SD</i>	$\bar{X}$	<i>SD</i>	$\bar{X}$	<i>SD</i>
HHOC	5.77	2.45	5.79	2.35	5.96	2.34	5.88	2.25	5.95	2.36	5.88	2.24
FAED	3.62	1.75	3.71	1.72	3.75	1.64	3.72	1.61	3.76	1.65	3.69	1.62
MOED	3.48	1.26	3.52	1.28	3.57	1.22	3.62	1.24	3.57	1.28	3.62	1.28
HHIN	4.24	1.67	4.03	1.61	4.41	1.59	4.15	1.52	4.39	1.57	4.08	1.43
MOWK	.61	.49	1.00	.00	.56	.50	1.00	.00	.55	.50	1.00	.00
MOL5 ^a	—	—	.51	.80	—	—	.50	.81	—	—	.49	.80
M610 ^a	—	—	.71	.86	—	—	.66	.86	—	—	.63	.83
M115 ^a	—	—	1.06	.90	—	—	1.11	.88	—	—	1.06	.87
MG16 ^a	—	—	1.72	.45	—	—	1.72	.45	—	—	1.69	.46
RRXC ^a	—	—	3.10	1.02	—	—	3.15	1.03	—	—	3.20	1.08
RRXN ^a	—	—	3.67	1.22	—	—	3.68	1.19	—	—	3.73	1.18
MOJO ^a	—	—	3.81	1.98	—	—	3.73	1.96	—	—	3.65	1.99
FAAT ^a	—	—	3.21	1.23	—	—	3.30	1.17	—	—	3.33	1.18
MOAT ^a	—	—	3.86	1.19	—	—	3.88	1.41	—	—	3.91	1.12
CARHUSF ^b	—	—	7.23	3.27	—	—	6.96	3.17	6.93	3.09	7.08	3.19
CHLDWKF ^b	—	—	1.99	3.35	—	—	1.78	3.22	1.40	3.19	1.74	3.21
WEQTYT ^b	—	—	4.36	2.28	—	—	4.52	2.21	4.58	2.22	4.62	2.22
CDA	3.00	1.22	3.04	1.24	3.14	1.35	3.17	1.38	3.29	1.38	3.30	1.38
FTEB	.58	.49	.62	.49	.61	.49	.63	.48	.71	.45	.72	.45
CCB	1.18	.50	1.23	.57	1.14	.44	1.15	.46	1.24	.58	1.24	.58
FTEE	1.49	.67	1.45	.72	1.49	.74	1.42	.74	1.57	.68	1.55	.70
CCE	.08	.27	.10	.30	.05	.24	.06	.24	.06	.23	.07	.25
CDE	1.63	1.31	1.67	1.39	1.60	1.33	1.50	1.20	1.70	1.69	1.69	1.35

^aApplicable only to daughters of mothers who ever worked.^bNot assessed in Waves A and B.

Table II. Subsamples Means and Standard Deviations for Single (Never-Married) Women

Variable	Wave A				Wave B				Wave E			
	All single women		Single women whose mothers worked		All single women		Single women whose mothers worked		All single women		Single women whose mothers worked	
	$\bar{X}$	<i>SD</i>	$\bar{X}$	<i>SD</i>	$\bar{X}$	<i>SD</i>	$\bar{X}$	<i>SD</i>	$\bar{X}$	<i>SD</i>	$\bar{X}$	<i>SD</i>
HHOC	5.92	2.35	5.84	2.21	5.86	2.39	5.79	2.22	5.61	2.33	5.55	2.18
FAED	3.71	1.64	3.61	1.61	3.67	1.68	3.57	1.65	3.42	1.65	3.37	1.64
MOED	3.56	1.30	3.61	1.31	3.54	1.36	3.58	1.36	3.43	1.36	3.48	1.40
HHIN	4.33	1.55	4.03	1.39	4.26	1.55	3.95	1.36	3.97	1.54	3.76	1.38
MOWK	.56	.50	1.00	.00	.56	.50	1.00	.00	.60	.49	1.00	.00
MOL5 ^a	—	—	.47	.79	—	—	.46	.78	—	—	.40	.73
M610 ^a	—	—	.64	.85	—	—	.64	.83	—	—	.75	.89
M115 ^a	—	—	1.06	.86	—	—	1.04	.85	—	—	1.05	.86
MG16 ^a	—	—	1.68	.47	—	—	1.66	.47	—	—	1.65	.48
RRXC ^a	—	—	3.24	1.10	—	—	3.25	1.13	—	—	3.27	1.09
RRXN ^a	—	—	3.79	1.15	—	—	3.84	1.14	—	—	3.95	1.07
MOJO ^a	—	—	3.55	2.03	—	—	3.50	2.06	—	—	3.42	2.13
FAAT ^a	—	—	3.39	1.15	—	—	3.39	1.17	—	—	4.45	1.11
MOAT ^a	—	—	3.98	1.08	—	—	4.01	1.07	—	—	4.14	0.96
CARHUS ^b	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	7.35	3.22	7.51	3.24
CHLDWKF ^b	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	1.87	3.16	2.38	3.23
WEQTYF ^b	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	4.49	2.11	4.34	2.06
CDA	3.39	1.43	3.38	1.44	3.46	1.43	3.44	1.42	3.50	1.49	3.47	1.55
FTEB	.75	.43	.75	.43	.80	.40	.80	.40	.76	.42	.76	.43
CCB	1.32	.66	1.32	.67	1.42	.74	1.42	.75	1.63	.83	1.63	.85
FTEE	1.69	.61	1.70	.65	1.74	.58	1.76	.55	1.86	.42	1.85	.44
CCE	.12	.32	.13	.34	.15	.35	.17	.38	.38	.49	.38	.49
CDE	2.01	1.61	2.00	1.58	2.21	1.68	2.27	1.69	3.16	1.84	3.17	1.84

^aApplicable only to daughters of mothers who ever worked.^bNot assessed in Waves A and B.

of household's occupation (HHOC) ranged from 0 (farmer, farm worker) to 8 (professional); mother's and father's educational attainments (MOED and FAED, respectively) ranged from 1 (eighth grade) to 6 (graduate or professional degree); respondent's (daughter's) family of origin head of household's income (HHIN) ranged from 2 (less than \$5,000) to 7 (greater than \$20,000).

Whether a respondent's mother ever worked (MOWK) was coded as a dummy variable with yes equal to 1 and no equal to 0. If a respondent's mother ever worked, at what ages in her daughter's life she worked were assessed. From these assessments the following variables were created: whether mother worked when respondent was 5 years old or less (MOL5), when respondent was 6 to 10 years of age (M610), 11 to 15 years of age (M115), and/or greater than or equal to 16 years of age (MG16). Each of these variables was coded 0 for mother not employed, 1 for mother's part-time employment, and 2 for mother's full-time employment during the respective age period of the daughter. Variables identifying when mother worked, respondent's reactions, mother's job type, and father's and mother's attitudes were answered only by women whose mothers had ever worked. Respondent's reaction as a child (RRXC), as an adult (RRXN), and her recollections of her father's (FAAT) and mother's (MOAT) attitudes toward mother's employment were coded from 1 (very negative) to 5 (very positive). Mother's job type (MOJO) ranged from 1 (blue collar) to 7 (professional with postgraduate degree).

Sex-role ideology was indicated by attitude toward wives with careers (CARHUSF), attitude toward working mothers (CHLDWKF), and attitude toward women's equality (WEQTYF); these were factor-analyzed scales composed of the signed sum of their component items. The component items ranged from 0 (strongly agree) to 4 (strongly disagree). CARHUSF ranged from 0 to 16, CHLDWKF from -4 to 8, and WEQTYF from 0 to 12 (see Bielby, Note 2, for further information).

Dependent variables were scaled and coded as follows. Study/career field atypicality as an undergraduate (CDA) and seven years past the baccalaureate (CDE) indicate the percentage of women in a given study field. Percentages were computed from the sex distribution within study fields of about 5,000 respondents to the NORC 1961 College Graduating Class Study. Scaled categories were devised from a total of 95 career/study fields and were coded accordingly: 8 (0% to 10% female), 7 (11% to 30% female), 6 (31% to 40% female), 5 (41% to 55% female), 4 (56% to 70% female), 3 (71% to 85% female), 2 (86% to 99% female), and 1 (100% female; see Bielby, Note 2, for further information). Since about 40% of college graduates in 1961 were women, categories 6, 7, and 8 represent career atypicality in varying degrees, and categories 1 through 4 represent more traditional career fields. Full-time employment one year past the baccalaureate (FTEB) was coded as a dummy variable with yes equal to 1 and no equal to 0. Full-time employment seven years past the baccalaureate

(FTEE) was coded 2 for full time, 1 for part time, and 0 for not employed. Career commitment one year past the baccalaureate (CCB) ranged from 3 (high career commitment – respondent expected a career to predominate in her life), 2 (medium career commitment – respondent expected voluntary activities to predominate in her life), and 1 (low career commitment – respondent expected family to predominate). High and medium career commitment seven years past the baccalaureate were aggregated into one category coded 1 (high). A dummy variable was created, with low commitment coded 0.

RESULTS

Results of analyses examining the effect due to presence or absence of maternal employment on ever-married daughter's career salience indicators (CDA, CCB, FTEB, CCE, CDE, FTEE) are presented in Table III. Multicollinearity, the high intercorrelation between independent variables, present between the socioeconomic indicators (HHOC, FAED, MOED, HHIN), restricts interpreting their respective individual effects upon the dependent variables. While these variables can be individually interpreted within a specific wave, they are primarily a block of information to be accounted for prior to analysis of other variables pertinent to mother's work experiences.

Socioeconomic independent variables individually and as a block of information are compared longitudinally (across waves). Unstandardized coefficients were examined and found to be nearly identical in their relative magnitudes to standardized coefficients. Hence only the latter will be reported here. Among

Table III. Standardized Coefficients of the Final Equations for Maternal Employment as a Determinant of Career Salience Among Married White Female College Graduates

Dependent variable	Standardized coefficients ^a					R ²	N
	Independent variables						
	HHOC	FAED	MOED	HHIN	MOWK		
CDA	<i>ns</i>	-.112	.251 ^b	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	.046	272
CCB	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	-.078	-.061	<i>ns</i>	.013	682
FTEB	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	-.066	<i>ns</i>	.004	682
CCE	.043	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	-.076 ^c	.044	.007	1342
CDE	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	.066 ^c	-.071 ^c	<i>ns</i>	.006	1342
FTEE	<i>ns</i>	-.104 ^c	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	.011	1342

^aCoefficients with *F* values greater than 1.5 were selected to represent significant effects. Variables were excluded from the regression equations if their corresponding coefficients had *F* values less than or equal to 1.5.

^b*p* < .01.

^c*p* < .05.

ever-married female college graduates, those from lower status origins tend to have more career salience. Across all waves and for all dependent variables, each significant HHIN and FAED standardized coefficient is negative in direction. Thus, for ever-married women in this national probability sample of female college graduates, the relationship previously reported for adolescents by Douvan and Adelson (1966) is replicated. In a national probability sample of female adolescents they found that more career-oriented girls tended to come from lower socioeconomic strata. Interestingly, as Tangri (1972) reported, the relationship between mother's educational attainment (MOED) and daughter's career atypicality as a college senior (CDA) and seven years later (CDE) is positive; perhaps this indicates the daughter's "inheriting" a study field interest which predisposes her toward a career. However, because mother's and father's educational attainments are highly correlated, precise interpretation of this relationship cannot be made. The positive relationship is reversed for career commitment one year out of college, a time when most women are marrying and withdrawing from career involvements (Bielby, Note 2).

After controlling for the socioeconomic indicators, mother's presence in the labor force (MOWK) is related positively only to married daughter's stated career commitment seven years past the baccalaureate (CCE; $b = .044$). Note however that mother's working, in combination with socioeconomic indicators, accounts for only a small portion (less than 1%) of the total variance; this indicates that *other* factors are critical to determining married daughter's career commitment after college. The finding places maternal employment per se in perspective as less important relative to other determinants of married daughter's early adult career salience. Furthermore, career salience among married women is virtually nonexistent by Wave E. Clearly, so common an occurrence as maternal employment is not sufficient to account for the low incidence of career salience among married women.

Results for effects due to maternal employment on single daughters are presented in Table IV. Qualifications due to multicollinearity also apply to the socioeconomic indicators for single women. Examination of standardized and unstandardized beta coefficients (HHOC, FAED, MOED, HHIN) across time (assessments) for never-married (single) women reveals a pattern somewhat different from ever-married women. While head of household's occupation (HHIN) maintains a clear negative relationship with single daughter's career salience indicators, as among ever marrieds, it is less relevant, since it appears only twice over time as a significant variable.

As among ever-married women, father's educational attainment (FAED) essentially retains its negative relationship with career salience indicators, while respondent's family of origin head of household's occupation (HHOC) remains essentially positive. But as independent variables they significantly account for variance in more dependent variables than they do for married daughters. The relationship of mother's educational attainment (MOED) is clearly less impor-

Table IV. Standardized Coefficients of the Final Equations for Maternal Employment as a Determinant of Career Salience Among Single White Female College Graduates

Dependent variable	Standardized coefficients ^a					R ²	N
	Independent variables						
	HHOC	FAED	MOED	HHIN	MOWK		
CDA	.088 ^b	.053	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	.016	1337
CCB	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	−.181 ^c	−.046	.031	913
FTEB	−.104 ^b	−.060	−.102 ^b	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	.047	913
CCE	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	−.187 ^c	<i>ns</i>	.035	270
CDE	.109	−.143	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	.016	270
FTEE	.118	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	.014	270

^aCoefficients with *F* values greater than 1.5 were selected to represent significant effects. Variables were excluded from the regression equations if their corresponding coefficients had *F* values less than or equal to 1.5.

^b*p* < .05.

^c*p* < .01.

tant for singles than for marrieds, and when significant is negative. The meaning of this relationship is uninterpretable.

After controlling for socioeconomic indicators, maternal employment (MOWK) significantly relates negatively only to the career commitment of single female college graduates one year past the baccalaureate ($b = -.046$). Again, this relationship is uninterpretable. As among married daughters, the total variance explained (R^2) by the statistical model when MOWK is significant is minimal at 3%, indicating that factors other than mother ever working or socioeconomic status account for a single daughter's career commitment. For all other career salience indicators of single daughters whose mean levels indicate career involvement (see Table II), mother's working has no significant relationship.

In Table V are results for variables related to maternal employment for married college-educated daughters of mothers who have worked. Contrary to other studies (e.g., Douvan & Adelson, 1966), the results indicate that among married daughters, *when* their mothers worked and the reactions and attitudes associated with maternal employment are only inconsistently related to the daughters' career saliency. Respondents' reactions as children (RRXC) to mother's employment, and mothers' attitude toward their jobs (MOAT) yield nonsignificant results for all career salience indicators and are not included in Table V.

Furthermore, many significant associations found are negative: job type (MOJO) on career commitment one year past graduation (CCB; $b = -.131$), and father's attitudes toward mother's work (FAAT) on full-time employment one year past (FTEB; $b = -.114$), and seven years past the baccalaureate (FTEE; $b = -.085$). Results are counter to what is typically presumed to be the case, that the model provided by maternal involvement and father's support of that involvement is directly transmitted to and used by the daughter. It is possible that transmission may be complicated by a socioeconomic effect (as indicated by

Table V. Standardized Coefficients of the Final Equations for Maternal Employment-Related Factors as Determinants of Career Salience Among Married Female College Graduates

Dependent variable	Standardized coefficients ^a														R ²	N
	Independent variables															
	HHOC	FAED	MOED	HHIN	MOL5	M610	MG16	RRXN	MOJO	FAAT	CHLDWKF	CARHUSF	WEQTYF			
CDA	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	.151	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>-b</i>	<i>-b</i>	<i>-b</i>	.023	164	
CCB	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	-.131 ^c	<i>ns</i>	<i>-b</i>	<i>-b</i>	<i>-b</i>	.017	378	
FTEB	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	-.114	<i>-b</i>	<i>-b</i>	<i>-b</i>	.013	378	
CCE	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	-.068	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	.090	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	.120 ^c	.063	.065	.044	735	
CDE	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	-.068	.090	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	.107 ^c	.072	.081	.038	735	
FTEE	.108	-.074	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	.170 ^c	-.112	.121	<i>ns</i>	-.085	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	.043	735	

^aCoefficients with *F* values greater than 1.5 were selected to represent significant effects. Variables were excluded from the regression equations if their corresponding coefficients had *F* values less than or equal to 1.5.

^bNot assessed in Waves A and B.

^c*p* < .05.

status of mother's job being opposite in direction from the presumed "modeling" effect). For whatever reasons, daughters of mothers who worked in high status jobs are less likely to be career involved themselves.

Indicators of sex-role ideology – attitudes toward working mothers (CHLDWKF), toward wives with careers (CARHUSF), and toward women's equality (WEQTYF) – are consistently positively related to two indicators of career salience, career commitment (CCE), and career atypicality (CDE) seven years past the baccalaureate, but they are not significantly related to full-time employment (FTEE). This pattern of relationships suggests that a dissonance exists among unemployed married women who have atypical interests and attitudes supportive of female work involvement. For many of these women, the tasks of marriage and childbearing seven years past the baccalaureate may inhibit the act, but not the approval, of career involvement. As a group, attitudes account for about half to two-thirds of the total variances explained (R^2 , not reported in Table V). Generally the total variance accounted for (R^2) among all career salience indicators of married women whose mothers worked is small; this indicates that factors other than socioeconomic indicators, mother's working, and sex-role ideology account for what career salience these women have. Mean levels of career atypicality decline across waves. Part of this decline can be attributed to the increasing numbers of women who have become housewives by Wave E and consequently are assigned to the traditional end of the atypicality scale.

Results are presented in Table VI for single (never-married) women whose mothers ever worked. The socioeconomic indicators do not present any surprising differences from ever-married women and will not be discussed further. Two aspects of the subsamples of single women are immediately apparent. First, among single women seven years past the baccalaureate, only two maternal employment and attitudinal variables (MOJO and CARHUSF) are associated with indicators of career salience. In contrast, eight such variables are associated with those dependent variables among married women (compare coefficients of nonsocioeconomic variables in the last three lines of Tables V and VI). Second, while fewer factors relate to career salience of single women seven years past graduation than among married women, variation in career salience the year of, and the year following, graduation is considerably more influenced by socioeconomic, maternal employment, and attitudinal variables for single women than for married women (compare R^2 in the first three lines of Tables V and VI). That is, the impact upon career salience of the independent variables included in this study occurs early in the postgraduation careers of single women, and it occurs later in the postbaccalaureate careers of married women.⁵

⁵Of course, many of the married women in later waves were single women in earlier waves. The maternal employment influences may have remained with these women, but not with those who did not marry by Wave E.

Table VI. Standardized Coefficients of the Final Equations for Maternal Employment-Related Factors as Determinants of Career Salience Among Single White Female College Graduates

Dependent variable	Standardized coefficients ^a										R ²	N
	Independent variables											
	HHOC	FAED	MOED	HHIN	MOL5	RRXN	MOJO	FAAT	CARHUSF			
CDA	.117 ^b	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	-.071	.143 ^c	- ^d	.036	731	
CCB	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	-.162 ^c	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	.101	- ^d	.031	507	
FTEB	<i>ns</i>	-.118	-.013	<i>ns</i>	-.118 ^b	-.114	-.109	<i>ns</i>	- ^d	.069	507	
CCE	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	-.163	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	.141	.045	159	
CDE	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	-.172	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	.029	159	
FTEE	<i>ns</i>	.181	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	<i>ns</i>	.033	159	

^aCoefficients with *F* values greater than 1.5 were selected to represent significant effects. Variables were excluded from the regression equations if their corresponding coefficients had *F* values less than or equal to 1.5.

^b*p* < .05.

^c*p* < .01.

^dNot assessed in Waves A and B.

Examination of individual independent variables reveals an interesting pattern. The positive relationship existing between father's favorable attitudes towards mother's working (FAAT) and single daughter's career atypicality as a college senior (CDA; $b = .143$) suggests a predisposition toward career salience if respondent knows via her father that husbands can be supportive of wives' working. A single daughter's father's attitudes (FAAT) may assure her that her work will not preclude her finding a husband. Note, however, that this relationship does not hold over time, indicating other factors eventually account for her career salience. Mother's job type (MOJO) is negatively related to longitudinal indicators of daughters' career salience and appears to act as a socioeconomic indicator rather than as an indicator of a sex-role model. Daughter's negative reaction as an adult to her mother's working is uninterpretable. One might speculate that single daughters resent the expanded roles modeled by their working mothers which led the daughters into careers they would prefer not to have, but this interpretation is untenable in combination with the interpretation for single daughter's career salience and father's attitudes. Additional research should clarify this apparent contradiction.

DISCUSSION

The longitudinal analysis of career salience in a national probability sample of women who graduated from college in 1961 clearly entailed a more complete specification of maternal employment-related factors than has been previously presented. Selection on marital categories (ever and never married) and age (less than 30 years of age) prior to the analysis permitted distinct subsamples to be identified and analyzed for characteristic influences from factors identified as critical determinants in career salience: socioeconomic status, maternal employment history, and indicators of sex-role ideology.

Among all married and single subsamples, many socioeconomic indicators related significantly in a negative direction to career salience across the eight-year assessment period, upholding a relationship identified in a nonrepresentative sample of female undergraduates (Tangri, 1972) and in a national sample of female adolescents (Douvan & Adelson, 1966) that career-oriented women come from less economically privileged homes. The theoretical importance of the negative relationship is indicated by its persistence over time. Social scientists interested in specification of family dynamics that eventuate in career salience ought to focus on families within this social stratum.

Nevertheless, despite replication in this study of socioeconomic effects in daughter's career salience, these effects, even in combination with other variables relevant to career salience, did not account for much variance in either single or married daughter's career salience. This finding indicates that even when consi-

dered together, these family "environment" variables cannot substantially account for why female offspring do or do not retain their career salience. Furthermore, mother's presence in the labor force had no consistent relationship with the dependent variables. It related positively to married daughter's career commit (her expectation to derive satisfaction in life primarily from a career) seven years past the baccalaureate, and negatively to single daughter's career involvement one year past college graduation; this suggests that more immediate factors in daughter's adult life take precedence over family history. If daughters one year past the baccalaureate who have yet to marry are not career involved, and many of the same women as married daughters six years later declare career commitment toward the termination of their childbearing period, then evidence clearly suggests that past determinants of career salience in young adult women are outweighed by contemporary factors in their lives. Evidence abounds in the literature that the husband (Weil, 1961) and childbearing *per se* (Sweet, 1973) overwhelmingly influence women's labor force participation. Mothers' presence in the labor force has an ultimate positive influence on their daughters, but its effects become latent at some point prior to or immediately following college graduation until their daughters have essentially completed childbearing.

Specific factors associated with mother's employment (age of respondent when mother worked and various family members' reactions to mother's employment) in both single and married subsamples were not consistently related to daughter's career salience. Results indicate that variables currently designed to assess the family dynamics associated with maternal employment must be refined or replaced.

Sex-role ideology, presumably a temporal and conceptual outcome of maternal work influences, was clearly important for married women's career salience as indicated by the number of significant, positive relationships it had with the dependent variables (i.e., more liberal ideology is related to greater career salience). Additional results from these data (not reported here) show that ideological variables noticeably increased the amount of variance accounted for in the dependent variables among most (married) women, indicating that maternal employment is *mediated* through positive attitudes toward career salience formed during the daughters' socialization. While this conclusion is not surprising, it does assure generalizability of psychologists' postulations (Hoffman, 1974; Miller, 1975) along this line.

The finding that career salience of never marrieds (single women) does not conform to this interpretation remains to be explored. Factors and dynamics that account for these women's strikingly evident career motivation await specification.

In conclusion, these data describe a sequence of events which temporarily attenuates maternal employment effects. While the sequence is not altogether

surprising, it is now distinctly generalizable to White female college graduates and should provide the basis and direction for continued substantive refinements in the relationship of maternal work history to the multivariate determinants of daughters' career salience.

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